

Socio-Economic Factors in Educational Development: Case of Nineteenth Century Travancore

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Socio-Economic Factors in Educational Development

Case of Nineteenth Century Travancore

P K Michael Tharakan

Travancore state is found to have had relatively better spread of literacy in the nineteenth century itself. The reasons for this are normally sought in the enlightened policies of the monarchical regime and of the christian missionaries.

In this paper it is argued that the explanation for the spread of literacy and education as well as the founding of an impressive school network in Travancore is to be found in the favourable social and economic forces operating in that society. These may be identified as (a) commercialisation of the economy and the resultant demand for basic literary skills, (b) changes in the social structure and hence the rise of an elite from castes and communities which were not allowed so far to lay claim to bureaucratic positions linked to educational qualifications, and (c) the peculiar settlement pattern which made it possible for a larger proportion of people to make use of schools. [This paper is published in two parts. The second part will appear next week.]

INTRODUCTION

KERALA, the southern most state of the Indian Union, is widely noted for its high level of literacy. In 1981, with a general literacy rate of 69.17 per cent, and male and female literacy rates of 74.03 per cent and 64.48 per cent respectively, Kerala's position was not only far ahead of the general Indian literacy rate—which was only 36.17 per cent¹—but was also ahead of most other developing countries. What makes the Kerala case more interesting is the fact that such high levels of literacy was achieved with a rather low level of per capita income, of around Rs 1,312 in 1980-81, which was lower than the average Indian per capita income of Rs 1,571.²

This generates interest in exploring not only the details of the content, organisation, and management of the education system that facilitated this achievement, but also about the socio-economic and political factors which contributed to the shaping of that education system over the years. In this paper we offer tentatively certain insights into the latter set of factors which had a role in the evolution of Kerala's educational system, with reference to the southern districts which until 1948 formed part of the erstwhile princely state of Travancore.

Kerala's pre-eminence in the matter of literacy in India, is not of recent origin. At the turn of the century, Cochin and Travancore—two princely states which now form part of Kerala—held the first and second positions in the order of literacy among states and provinces in India.³ (See Tables 1 and 2.) The advantage of a comparatively higher literacy level with which Cochin and Travancore entered the twentieth century is a point worth explaining in this context.

The district of Malabar, which is the third constituent unit of the composite state of Kerala, did not have a comparable level of literacy but still had a clear edge over most other districts of the Southern Presidency of Madras.⁴ This intra-regional difference between South (Travancore and Cochin) and

North (Malabar) Kerala, increased in the first half of twentieth century.⁵ Therefore, in explanations regarding the high literacy levels in Kerala, it is the South which merits special attention. Of the two states which formed its part, Travancore, the larger region, is chosen for analysis here.

NETWORK OF SCHOOLS: SOME EVIDENCE

The achievements of Travancore and Cochin in the nineteenth century were attributed *inter alia* to enlightened State policy which allowed significant public investment in education, not only by way of starting a number of government schools but also by offering liberal grants-in-aid to private schools. Drawing upon the grants as well as with own funds, various Christian Churches and groups as well as other private agencies set up several schools in Southern Kerala in the second half of the nineteenth century. Together these public and private schools accounted for an impressive network of formal educational institutions by the end of nineteenth century. In 1901 there were 3,683 educational institutions in Travancore,⁶ providing one school per 792 persons and 1.9 square mile area,⁷ and 119 schools per Taluk of the state⁸ on an average. Earlier investigations have brought out the effort that had been invested by government, private agencies, and traditional agencies in setting up these schools.⁹

Management pattern of the school system in Travancore consisted of government schools, private schools aided by government, and also unaided private schools. As Table 3 demonstrates, of these the unaided private schools dominated both in terms of the number of schools as well as of students. Next in terms of size was the private aided schools, followed by the government schools.

Such distribution of schools according to management, raises some interesting facts about the demand; for there seems to have been a steady demand for education to support so

many schools. We will analyse the growth of schools in each of these three categories, both from the point of the agencies providing schools as well as from the point of view of the demand for schools that was emerging in Travancore.

In nineteenth century fundamental changes were occurring in the Travancorean economy and society. Its land relations were reformed in such a way as to give proprietary rights to an important segment of former tenants. Like in rest of India, Travancore also had expansion of trade in spices and hill produces, along with new plantation companies appearing on the scene. Moreover, the administrative system in the state underwent some major changes, primarily expanding towards a British-style secretarial system. Apart from the fact that new communities have become landowners, using the proprietary rights now granted to them, and operating in the land market, there arose a number of job opportunities in the government and in private trade and plantation companies, attracting young people from these landowning communities. Moreover, there was an increase in the need for general literacy skills in computing and recording land documents in the commercialised economy. This relationship between the socio-economic transition and educational development is studied in this paper.

If we were to go back to the educational statistics of Travancore at the end of nineteenth century, quite significantly, primary schools and vernacular schools had a clear predominance. By 1900-01, 95.2 per cent of schools were primary schools and 83.7 per cent of students were primary school students.¹⁰ In the neighbouring Madras Presidency by the end of nineteenth century, primary schools constituted only 76 per cent of schools and primary school students formed only 57.3 per cent of the total student population.¹¹

Instruction in the vernacular had such pre-eminence in nineteenth century Travancore that the Travancore Census Report-1901 noted that

“it is refreshing to observe that the vernaculars are holding their ground on this side of the Ghats, better than elsewhere”.¹² In 1901, English schools in Travancore numbered only 112 or three per cent of the total number of schools; while the number of vernacular schools stood at 3,560, constituting 96.7 per cent of the total number of schools.¹³ With regard to the share of students, vernacular schools had 91.9 per cent and the English schools only 7.8 per cent.¹⁴

This pattern of distribution of schools was also helpful in promoting mass literacy. Primary schools and vernacular education do help the spread of literacy more than secondary schools and education in English. In fact this is a factor often held up in favour of Travancore as against other parts of India.¹⁵

The question remains as to whether this pattern was the result of any definite policy formulation. If it was the result of a deliberate policy, then the process of its implementation is to be explained. We know that at least from the days of the “Wood’s Despatch”,¹⁶ emphasis on primary education and vernacular education was contained in the policy statements of British India also. Yet in effect Travancore seems to have achieved more on these lines than British India. Travancore’s success in this regard depended on compulsions guiding the establishment of primary schools and vernacular schools. The demand for education in Travancore in nineteenth century, as we presently explain, was mostly for primary and vernacular education.

The demand created by the commercialised agricultural economy in Travancore was for basic literary skills such as the abilities to read, write and doing basic arithmetical exercises. Such skills are mainly provided in primary schools. Similarly, the bulk of the demand for personnel that came from government was for persons educated in Malayalam. This was due to the fact that Travancore state was mainly interested in people to man the lower and middle level jobs in government for which knowledge of Malayalam was enough, as the language in use was vernacular. On the other hand, British Indian government, even when they were looking for people to man the lower level jobs, must have wanted them to be proficient in English, as the English language was widely used in Imperial administration.¹⁷ The difference between Imperial and a provincial

administration in their requirements for trained personnel has to be looked at in this context.

Apart from these factors, schools in Travancore were ‘used’ much more. The fact that there were schools in practically all the major villages or nearby towns would have made it possible for students from neighbouring areas to attend school without difficulty.¹⁸ This was particularly so, because of the close proximity between villages and towns in Kerala. But in most other Indian provinces, schools in taluk and district headquarters could not have been made use of by students other than from the town itself; because of the distances involved.¹⁹

This paper essentially attempts to answer two basic questions. The first one is regarding the socio-economic factors which created enough demand for education in Travancore, and which prompted government and private agencies to increase the number of schools under their management. The second question addresses more specifically to the nature of the demand for education as it was felt in the latter years of nineteenth century. In trying to answer the second question we offer tentative conclusions about how primary and vernacular education came to predominate in Travancorean school network.

We present the arguments in two parts; the first part being essentially a review of developments in nineteenth century and the second part offering certain explanations.

I

TRADITIONAL EDUCATION

To understand literacy development in the nineteenth century, one has to analyse the literary traditions which existed here before that. Kerala like other parts of India had a traditional educational system which had both primary and higher educational facilities. Within the tradition in India different systems of teaching and learning were followed.²⁰

Higher education especially in the Vedas was essentially an exclusive preserve of the higher castes, particularly the Brahmins, in medieval Kerala society.²¹ Institutions for higher learning were mainly of two types, *vedapatasalais* and *sabhamatts*, both most often receiving support from the royalty in the form of land grants and other gifts.²³ Besides these, there were other institutions for popular education which brought basic educational facilities within the reach of castes and communities other than the

TABLE 2: LITERACY RATES IN TRAVANCORE AND OTHER STATES/PROVINCES OF INDIA, 1901

Province/ State	Literate Persons Per 1000 Popn	Literate Men Per 1000 Male Popn	Literate Women Per 1000 Female Popn
Cochin	133	224	45
Travancore	124	215	31
Baroda	88	163	8
Madras	65	119	9
Bombay	70	116	9
Bengal	—	104	5
Mysore	51	93	8
Berar	45	85	3
Assam	36	67	4
Punjab	—	64	3
Rajputana	—	62	2
United Provinces	—	57	2
Central India	—	55	3
Hyderabad	—	55	3
Central Provinces	28	54	2
Kashmir	—	38	1
Ajmer- Merwava	67	—	9
Gwalior	24	—	1
All India	—	98	7

Source: (i) Census (1903A), Ch VII, Tables, XIII and IX, Sub-Tax, p 218.
(ii) Census (1903B), Vol IA, Tables, Table VIII, p 114.
(iii) Gazetteer (1907), Vol IV, Ch XIII, pp 415-16.

Brahmins. Best known among such institutions were the *pallikudams* or *kudipallikudams*. Nurtured essentially by local initiative, primary schools bearing this name were common in Kerala and Tamil Nadu till very recently and are extant in some forms even today.²⁴ As has been pointed out elsewhere, “the fact that these schools have survived nearly a century of competition with the organised grant-receiving schools and that many parents send their children to both types of schools is an indication of the roots they had in tradition”.²⁵

These primary schools have their origins traced to the very early Buddhist and Jain influences in Kerala. Both Buddhist and Jain monks were concerned about popular education and their *pallis* or non-Vedic religious centres became centres of popular education as well.²⁶ While the Buddhist and Jain influence in South India is generally accepted, how much of it would have rubbed off on Kerala as we know it now becomes a matter of speculation. One could assume that in the trading centres and ‘towns’ which came up in Kerala’s rather primitive economic conditions of early Christian era, the Buddhist and Jain traditions of education must have made their presence felt. Out of these examples must a tradition of *kudipallikudams* have evolved in latter day Kerala.

In the schools which evolved out of this tradi-

TABLE 1: LITERATES AND ILLITERATES AMONG MEN AND WOMEN, TRAVANCORE, 1901
(Percentages in brackets)

	Both Sexes	Males	Females
Literate	364,810 (12.36)	319,977 (21.47)	44,833 (3.07)
Illiterate	2,587,347 (87.64)	1,170,188 (78.53)	1,417,159 (96.93)
Total	2,952,157	1,490,165	1,461,992

Source: V Nagam Aiyar (1906), Vol II, Ch VII, p 32.

tion and which were taught by teachers variously known as *asans*, *ezhuthachens* and *vadhyars*, elementary knowledge in reading, writing and arithmetic was imparted, besides a smattering of astrology sufficient to enable simple calculations required for domestic ritual and for determining the timings for agricultural operations. In some cases this was followed by rudimen-

tary instruction in medicine, ethics, literature and music.²⁷ These schools were conducted in verandhas of buildings, public places, tree shades or in the houses of teachers themselves.²⁸ It is fairly evident that such schools did not receive much support from the royalty or governments of the times but were maintained mainly by resources from within the village itself.

Usually the *asan* of the village school was a self-appointed pedagogue from a family of traditional teachers, who received some petty emoluments, mostly in kind—besides special gifts on auspicious days and at harvest time—from parents of his or her students. Fra Bartholomeo says that each student paid two *fanams* as *dakshina* every two months, which some students paid in paddy. He also mentions that in some schools payment for the teachers came from temple administrations or local landlords.²⁹ The general situation in South India was such that some schools were attached to temples or were maintained by Zamindars, rich traders and such other persons, even though in most South Indian villages the school teacher was one of the 'Village Twelve'—functionaries maintained from village surpluses.³⁰ It seems that in Kerala too, in case of *kudipallikudams*, something similar to that in other parts of South India must have prevailed.³¹ In the rare case of a *kudipallikudam* having boarding facilities, endowments used to be instituted by local landlords for meeting the expenses of food, clothes and learning materials.³² As far as state support is concerned, at least in Cochin there seems to be no evidence to suggest that the government aided or maintained schools prior to the administration of Colonel Munro in early nineteenth century.³³

The exclusive nature of even higher education, which in later centuries also remained the monopoly of Brahmins in theory, seems to have got diluted over the centuries. By the sixteenth, seventeenth and eighteenth centuries, education came within the reach of almost all the socially and economically privileged sections of society.³⁴ It is significant that Thunjath Ramanujan Ezhuthachen, the 'father of Malayalam literature', was not a Brahmin but a Nair from the sub-caste of Ezhuthachens.³⁵ Around this period non-Brahmins also started composing Sanskrit works of their own and in the process created a synthesis between Sanskrit, Tamil and other local dialects, to form the base for the evolution of a national Malayalam literature.

If we are to take the sixteenth, seventeenth and eighteenth centuries, when non-Brahmin groups also acquired higher literary skills, and see how much literacy had spread in Kerala, we come across an estimate made by Kathleen Gough for early eighteenth century. Her studied guess is that at least more than half the men and at least one-quarter of the women might have been proficient in Malayalam in the

TABLE 3: NUMBER OF SCHOOLS AND STUDENTS, DISTRIBUTED ACCORDING TO DIFFERENT TYPES OF MANAGEMENT, TRAVANCORE 1900-01

Management	Number of Schools	Percentage of Schools	Number of Students	Percentage of Students in Each Category
Government	429	11.6	45,834	24.8
Private Aided	941	25.5	51,383	27.8
Private Unaided	2,313	62.9	87,422	47.4
Total	3,683	100.0	1,84,639	100.0

Source: RAT (1902), Ch VII, p 60, pa 279.

TABLE 4: NUMBER OF EDUCATIONAL INSTITUTIONS IN TRAVANCORE, 1816-1820

Name of Districts	Number of Public Institutions for Education	Total Population	Area (square miles)	Population Per Square Mile
(1)	(2)	(3)	(4)	(5)
Thovaully	11	16,675	128¾	138.9
Agisteewaram	15	51,612	97¼	531.4
	6			
Culkolam	55	43,271	284¼	153.2
	24			
Vellarencode	3	30,012	145½	206.9
Neyattancurray	20	40,237	213¼	188.9
Trivandrum	11	43,584	99¼	440.2
	18			
Neddoarencaud	9	17,857	339½	52.5
Sherienkeel	4	31,935	109	292.9
Coulum or Quilon	5	49,462	153½	323.2
Kotarakurray	2	28,784	634½	45.3
	1			
Shencottah, above the Ghat	14	13,639	64¾	213.1
Kunatoor	3	18,974	184½	103.1
Manvillykurray	2	47,079	364½	129.3
	1			
Toruwulla	2	21,065	124¾	169.8
Karunagappally	3	42,774	89	480.6
Kartigapally	—	46,317	70	661.6
Umbellapolay	14	50,733	121¼	419.2
Sharetullay	9	37,013	129½	886.9
Chunganacherry	2	23,156	260½	89.0
Kotiam	5	24,363	147	165.7
Meenachil	2	5,986	126½	126.8
Thodhuwully	2	8,562	534¾	16.0
Yaithumanur	2	29,726	140¼	212.3
Vyekum	3	20,353	88¾	228.6
Perawum	2	14,959	116	128.9
Muattupully	2	19,009	399	48.1
Perrumbauloor or Kunnathunad	2	21,931	163¾	133.7
Aulungad	2	27,278	208½	131.1
Purraoar	3	18,376	47¼	390.9
Yeddawaga or Petty States				
Aulingal	3	10,382	34	305.3
Pundalum	—	16,382	42¼	204.8
Yeddapully	—	18,083	57½	317.2
Pooniatu	—	671	185½	3.6
Wunjepolay	2	5,954	57	71.1
Total	264	906,587	6,730¾	134.7

Source: Ward and Conner (1898): "Dazajadda Table of Travancore, or particulars connected with its Statistics" on pp 46-47, and "Population Table of Travancore and other particulars connected with its Statistics" on pp 128-129.

early eighteenth century in Kerala.³⁶ The reasons she points out for the high literacy are:³⁷ (a) Kerala's high agricultural productivity connected with its heavy rainfall, which permitted at least a quarter of the population to be set apart as literate specialists; (b) the growth of overseas commerce, and then of land sales, cash rents and mortgages, and cash wages for soldiers and urban artisans which fostered the use of simple literacy for accounting and legal documents; (c) the fact that Nairs and other matrilineal castes gave their women a higher status in many respects than was customary in patrilineal India, which led to most of them learning to read; and (d) early European settlers educating the lower castes who might otherwise have remained totally illiterate.

The sixteenth to eighteenth centuries were a period of growth of literacy in Kerala. Yet to put the spread of literacy as high as more than 50 per cent for males and 25 per cent for women seems exaggerated. In traditional Kerala, only two per cent of the population — the Namputhiris—were ever earmarked as literate specialists.³⁸ Even if we add the clerks, writers, astrologers, etc, engaged by the Rajas and chieftains from other castes, particularly the Nairs who numbered at the most around 19 per cent of the population,³⁹ we do not reach the "quarter of the population" Kathleen Gough claims to have been set apart as literate specialists. To assume that all Nair males would have been proficient in Malayalam is also in our opinion exaggerated. Considering the differentiation amongst various layers of the Nair caste, one should account for a significant segment who did not have anything to do with administration or accounting. Even after considerable growth in schools in Travancore, as late as 1891, Nairs showed only 37.58 per cent literacy for males.⁴⁰ This would apply for their females as well, though it is true that this matrilineal caste allowed their women comparatively more freedom. As far as the ability to read is concerned, we cannot expect more than a small segment of Nair women having

acquired that skill, which seems to be reflected in the 1891 census figure of 5.72 per cent literate.⁴¹

The period under consideration did see spread of overseas commerce, particularly in pepper and other spices. Connected with this trade there must have arisen a group of literate people. Yet once again we feel that their numbers could not have been very high. Moreover, among the traders, especially those who dealt with Europeans, the number of 'non-indigenous' groups like Chetties, Jews, Konkarnies, and Gujaratis should also be accounted for. The teaching of lower caste persons by Europeans is also a point requiring further investigation. Before the arrival of the London Mission Service (LMS) and the Church Mission Service Society (CMS) in early nineteenth century, European involvement in any sort of mass literacy work does not seem to have taken place. The Dutch never took literacy and education in Kerala seriously.⁴² The Portuguese, who operated mainly among the Syrian Christians and the fishermen of the coast did not seem to have really contributed to the spread of literacy as we would presently describe.

On the whole, we feel that the literacy level in this region, with the strong injunctions against learning of lower castes, should have been low in early eighteenth century. Though no specific statistics are available, it can be surmised that among the Brahmins literacy level must have been high. Whether the same could be said of all Nairs is doubtful, except that some of them must have acquired whatever education that was available in the *kalaries*. The situation of Christians and Muslims, in spite of having some trading groups among them who must have had literacy, was also, we feel, closer to the situation of Nairs than that of Brahmins. Most of the ordinary Christians and Muslims must have remained illiterate. The case of Ezhavas were quite likely, except for those among them who practised ayurveda and astrology, even worse.⁴³ The aggressive slave

TABLE 6: CASTE-WISE DISTRIBUTION OF STUDENTS IN INDIGENEOUS SCHOOLS OF MALABAR DISTRICT, 1822

Caste	Number of Students	
	Male	Female
Brahmins	2,230	5
Vaisyas	84	15
Sudras	3,697	707
Other Castes	2,756	343
Muslims	3,196	1,122
Total	11,963	2,192
Grand Total	14,155	
Population of Malabar	9,07,575	

Source: P N Chopra, *et al*, (1979), Vol III, Ch XV, p 223.

TABLE 7: DIMENSION OF THE INDIGENEOUS SCHOOL-SYSTEM, MADRAS PRESIDENCY, 1822

Number of schools	12,498
Number of students	1,84,110
Population of school-going age (5-10)	14,27,882
Total population	1,28,50,941
Distribution of schools	1 per 1000 popn
Proportion of students to the population under school-going age	1 out of 8

Source: J P Naik and S Nurullah (1974), Ch I, p 4.

castes of Pulayas and Cherumars are concerned, there is no reason to believe that there was any significant spread of literacy among them.⁴⁴

If the position of literacy and education in Kerala region as a whole was low in early eighteenth century, what could have happened to the situation during the course of the century in Travancore? Once again we have to make guesses for want of any concrete evidence.

For the traditional system of education, supported mainly by local initiative to thrive, peace and security are primary prerequisites. In Travancore in the second half of the eighteenth century there was an extended period of peace under Rama Varma, 'Dharma' Raja (1758-1798).⁴⁵ But in the first half there was civil war followed by wars of annexation under Martanda Varma.⁴⁶ For want of any concrete evidence, it is difficult for us to pass judgment about the progress of education under such circumstances.

The political centralisation⁴⁷ of almost half of Kerala under the new state of Travancore by Martanda Varma could have created the necessary conditions for educational as well as other types of development. But immediately in the eighteenth century we do not have any evidence of such development taking place.⁴⁸

The introduction of land tax, unknown in Kerala before that,⁴⁹ was a factor which could have adversely affected the traditional educational system. But even after its introduction the incidence of taxation remains so low as not

TABLE 5: NUMBER OF EDUCATIONAL INSTITUTIONS IN COCHIN, 1816-1820

Name of District	Public Institutions for Education	Total Population	Area in Square Miles	Population to the Square Mile
Cochee or Cochin	9	43,496	62.1	701.5
Trichoowapayoor	10	23,939	165.1	145.0
Mukundapuram	5	18,648	75.3	245.3
Thullapilly	5	20,026	104.0	192.5
Kunneeamur	3	36,115	81.0	445.8
Yainamkul	4	15,108	60.0	251.8
Chaylayekurray	4	28,141	167.1	106.8
Chittoor	25	14,196	285.0	49.8
Coda charyree	4	16,312	342.3	54.7
Kodungaloor	1	7,022	18.1	390.1
Total	70	223,003	1,361.2	163.3

Source: Ward and Corner (1898): "Dazajadda Table of Cochin or particulars connected with its Statistics" on p 49, and "Population Table of Cochin or particulars connected with its Statistics" on p 50.

to warrant any massive outflow of surpluses from the village⁵⁰ at the expense of educational efforts in the village.

The expansion of pepper trade and the increase in pepper prices⁵¹ could have added an impetus to educational development at least in areas and among communities which engaged in pepper trade. But considering the fact that there was a pepper monopoly introduced by the state⁵² one wonders how much of the benefit of such trade expansion must have really percolated down to the people.⁵³

On the whole, there is hardly any basis for judging on the state of education and literacy in eighteenth century Travancore. Yet we may presume that from the rather low level of literacy that seems to have existed in Kerala in early eighteenth century there was not much progress during the century.

LITERACY LEVELS AT BEGINNING OF NINETEENTH CENTURY

Reflecting this situation in Travancore, the number of educational institutions found in the state at the beginning of nineteenth century is quite low. The available information for the period concerned consists of the number of 'Public Institutions for Education' found in the survey of Ward and Conner between July 1816 and the end of 1820.⁵⁴ As Tables 4 and 5 show, there were 264 institutions for education in Travancore and 70 in neighbouring Cochin.⁵⁵ With a distribution of one school per 3,434 of

TABLE 8: GOVERNMENT SCHOOLS AND STUDENTS: TRAVANCORE, 1864-65⁸²

Type of Schools	Number	Students
High School, Trivandrum	1	678
Girls' Schools, Trivandrum	2	—
Dist Vernacular Schools	4	277
Dist English Schools	13*	431
Total	20	—**

Notes: * 3 of these schools were opened in 1864-65.

** There were a few students in Madras, supported by the government.

Source: RAT (1864-65): 'Education', p 46.

TABLE 9: NUMBER OF SCHOOLBOYS IN DIFFERENT CONGREGATIONS—PROTESTANT MISSION (LMS)—TRAVANCORE, 1815

Name of Congregation	Strength of Congregation	Number of Schoolboys
Mayilady	174	32
Pichikuliyiripur	30	33
Tameraculam	218	27
Pittaleam	116	28
Athicandu	50	25
Coilrilley	57	34
Eitamboly	102	9
Total	747	188

Source: Church History (1905): p 20.

TABLE 10: NUMBER OF SCHOOLS AND STUDENTS UNDER PROTESTANT MISSIONARY AGENCIES, SELECTED YEARS IN NINETEENTH CENTURY

Year	LMS Southern Travancore		CMS Northern Travancore	
	Schools	Students	Schools	Students
1812	—	68	—	—
1813	6	—	—	—
1815	—	188	—	—
1818	—	—	2	—
1819	16	—	—	—
1820	—	—	10	—
1821	—	—	35	—
1822	20	—	—	—
1823	27	—	—	—
1824	47	—	—	—
1827	59	1891	—	1051
1828	—	1736	—	—
1840	—	7540(?)	—	—
1858	—	5000	—	2719
1868	—	—	—	3296
1878	—	7429	—	4665
1901	351	16189	—	10607

Source: Eira Dalton (1963); and R J Jesudas (1975); and V Nagam Aiya (1884), Ch IV, pp 149-151.

population in Travancore and 3,186 of population in Cochin, both figures compare unfavourably with Malabar which had a school per 1,194 of population in 1822. Similarly in terms of area also Travancore with a school per 25.49 sq mile and Cochin per 19.45 sq mile lagged behind Malabar.

For Malabar we are fortunate to get more information on educational patterns from a survey of indigenous schools which covered the district in 1822. This showed that there were 759 schools, besides a College for Vedic learning, supported by the Zamorin of Calicut.⁵⁶ As shown in Table 6, there were 14,155 students studying in these schools, besides the 75, all Brahmins, attending the college. If we take that one-ninth⁵⁷ of the population of 9,07,575 in Malabar were of school-going age then, one out of every seven children of school-going age was attending school in Malabar at that time. From this table we can surmise that Brahmin females were getting education at home, while the higher number of Muslim females might have come from *madrassas*—traditional Muslim schools.

The initiator of the survey, Thomas Munro, himself felt that the survey underestimated the actual proportions of the indigenous system, since it did not cover those children who were taught at home by private tutors or relatives. Enquiries in Madras city alone found 26,903 students—more than five times the number taught in schools—undergoing instruction in their homes.⁵⁸ Though in the districts the number of children receiving instructions at home could not have been as high as it was in Madras,⁵⁹ still there must have been a considerable number of such students all over the Presidency. On this basis Munro felt that the proportion of boys receiving education in the indigenous system was closer to one-third of

the boys of school-going age than one-fourth as it was found in the survey (see Table 7). Similarly the actual proportions of the indigenous system in Madras and also in Malabar might have been greater than what was revealed in the survey. What is to be found out is the effort that went into increasing the number of schools in Travancore over the nineteenth century to an extent as to overtake Malabar as well as other regions in India.

GOVERNMENT AND EDUCATION IN FIRST HALF OF NINETEENTH CENTURY

That in early nineteenth century, the traditional educational system was facing problems in Travancore is evident from the fact that in 1817, the then Rani of Travancore received complaints of educational neglect in the northern part of the state, as villagers were finding it difficult to pay schoolmasters. In response to the situation, a remarkable Royal Rescript was issued in that year⁶⁰ which, quite legitimately, has received acclaim in the educational history of the state. The fact that such a memorandum should come up from the people at that time is certainly remarkable, and the government's response to the memorandum may be taken as the starting point for 'modern' educational development in Travancore. Travancore's record of educational development in the first half of the nineteenth century is rather weak as compared to the second half. Yet this was the period in which 'modern' educational system, regulated and supervised, did take shape. From the part of the government, now under the tutelage of the British, we have the memorandum mentioned earlier and the Royal Rescript of 1817 accepting the responsibility of assisting village schools. This indeed was a departure from traditional policy by which Royal or governmental support for education was primarily for

centres of higher learning and not for primary schools.⁶¹ The Rescript addressed to Venkata Rao, Dewan Peishkar of Quilon, resolved that⁶² “the state should defray the whole cost of education of its people in order that there might be no backwardness in the spread of enlightenment among them; that by diffusion of education they might become better subjects and public servants, and that the reputation of the state might be advanced thereby”. Each school was to have two teachers paid from the Treasury, one well versed in Malayalam and Astronomy, and the other in Tamil and Arithmetic. Each teacher was to receive a monthly salary of fifty *fanams* (a little over seven rupees). The tahsildars and *sampratis* (taluk accountants) were strictly enjoined to visit the schools in their jurisdiction once a fortnight and submit reports of their inspections direct to the *huzur*.⁶³

This shift in policy, of supporting primary education, is certainly worthwhile to analyse. Though the Rescript was issued under the name of the then Rani of Travancore, a young girl of seventeen, it could not have been without the consent of Colonel Munro, who was British Resident (1810-1819) and Dewan (1811-1814).⁶⁴ The language of the Rescript indicates a belief in the value of education in making the people of Travancore “better subjects and public servants”. Moreover, governmental assistance is to be accompanied by regular inspection by revenue officials. In fact educational efforts assisted by the government and supervised by governmental authorities at the primary level may be taken as the beginning of ‘modern’ educational system in Travancore.

One of the major factors behind this shift of policy was the need for educated persons to run the ‘modern’ administrative system that was developing in the state. Munro had found the existing administrative system in Travancore inadequate for implementing his scheme for ‘modernisation’ of the state. Therefore he reorganised it, with a central secretariat as its pivot, on the lines of British administrative practices.⁶⁵ Among Munro’s reforms, some of the important measures were—apart from laying the foundations of a secretariat system—introduction of a well defined system of administrative divisions, regular gradation of officers and separation of military and judicial powers from revenue officers.⁶⁶ The judicial system was also overhauled, stopping trial by ordeal and introducing in its place well laid out regulations for the guidance of the courts. Zilla Courts were set up along with a court of appeal in the capital. The government also took over 348 major and 1,171 minor temples, administration of which with their vast properties was entrusted to the revenue officers.⁶⁷

Munro was on the lookout for qualified persons to man the extended administrative system. For the highest levels and for sensitive jobs people were brought from outside the state, with experience of working under the British. For middle level jobs as well as lower level jobs persons were recruited locally. It is pertinent to note in this context that in 1818 in Cochin, the government established 33 vernacular schools, at the instance of Munro who was Resident in that state also, with the ‘avowed’ object of training up young men for State Service as writers and accountants.⁶⁸ The Travancore

Rescript also armed through diffusion of education to make people of Travancore “better subjects and public servants”. In other words, the interest in education shown by Munro was to a great extent related to his desire for trained people for the administration.

The Rescript also stipulated regular official supervision of the village schools and the submitting of inspection reports to the central secretariat. This indicates an attempt at regulating and systematising the otherwise ‘non-formal’ traditional schools. We do not know how seriously and consistently such a policy was followed. Neither do we know whether the sentiments expressed in the Rescript regarding “defraying the whole cost of education” were actually realised; nor how far the indigenous school system was brought under the purview of governmental assistance.

Since the demand emanating from the requirements of the reformed administrative system could not have been met adequately by those trained in traditional curricula of the indigenous schools, it is likely that there was a marginal shift away from indigenous schools to those few missionary schools which had cropped up in different parts of Travancore in early nineteenth century. This is evident from the experience of Cochin. The vernacular schools started by Cochin government in 1818 were replicas of the indigenous schools. There was no change in “the manner and matter of instruction” and therefore could not “realise the expectation of their founder”⁶⁹—that of training young men for civil service—and were abolished in 1832. It is reasonable to presume that without any change in the traditional curricula these schools failed to attract those who were aspiring for positions in the modern civil service. On the other hand, the missionary schools had a curricula more suited to training for civil service, which might have attracted some students.⁷⁰ Yet it is also improbable that the missionary schools attracted too many youngsters from higher castes aspiring for civil service.

With or without government help indigenous schools must have survived in the first half of the century. The gradual shift away from indigenous schools, or the practice of sending children to indigenous schools as well as government or missionary schools, came into vogue by the second half of the century. This is reflected in the estimate in 1864-65 of “the pupils under instruction in all the private schools in the country” to be not much less than 40,000.⁷¹ Similarly the Administration Report for 1866-67 said that the state “abounds with” indigenous schools and that no parent need send his children outside their own village to get primary education.⁷²

Travancore government itself started a few schools in this period. But on the whole government activity in the field of education in the first half of the century was limited, as table 8 shows. All that the government did was the

TABLE 11: SUBJECTS TAUGHT IN CMS GRAMMAR SCHOOL, KOTTAYAM, 1834

Language	Ist Class	IInd Class	IIInd Class
Malayalam	Testament, Watt’s 2nd catecheism, Geography, Malayalam, Arithmetic and writing	Testament, Watt’s 1st catecheism, Malayalam, Arithmetic and Geography	One of the Gospels, catecheism, Malayalam, Tables
English	Bible with translation in Malayalam, Roman History with translation, Arithmetic and Grammar	Testament with translation into Malayalam, Arithmetic and outlines of Grammar	Spelling Book
Sanskrit	Amarakosam and Grammar	Amarakosam 1st part	Elements

Source: CMS 1835, ICHA Part I, App XX, pp 114-115.

TABLE 12: CLASSIFICATION OF STUDENTS IN CMS COLLEGE, KOTTAYAM 1816-1835, ACCORDING TO OCCUPATION

(a)	Employed in the service of the Mission or deriving support in any way directly or indirectly from Missionaries	24
(b)	In government service	Nil
(c)	Obtaining a livelihood from independent services	58
(d)	Employed in Trivandrum (1 as an usher in a school and 2 as <i>munshies</i> of Europeans)	3
(e)	Dead	10
	Total	95

Source: CMS 39, ICHA.

opening of a few English schools in Trivandrum and other important towns of the state in 1830s. The Raja's school at Trivandrum was started in 1834,⁷³ originally as a private school receiving grant and later in 1837 converted to a government school. In 1817 permission was granted for starting some government schools,⁷⁴ followed in 1819 by another *nittu* specifically mentioning the founding of a school at Chengannur.⁷⁵ In 1817 itself another *nittu* issued to Dewan Peishkar Venkita Rao, sanctioning the appointment of teachers and starting of public schools in Mavelikara, Karthikapalli, Tiruvalla and Kottarakara, is also found.⁷⁶ In 1818 another *nittu* was addressed to Venkita Rao sanctioning the appointment of some scholars to compile text-books in Malayalam.⁷⁷ In 1819 there was also a *nittu* arranging for governmental assistance to a few students for education.⁷⁸ Among the other schools started by government one at Chirayinkil was established around 1836.⁷⁹ Otherwise government policy in this period was restricted to occasional encouragement to private institutions, mainly missionary schools. There is evidence of government grant being given to the Kottayam Seminary as early as 1818.⁸⁰ Vernacular education does not seem to have received much attention, which is reflected in the comment of T Madhava Rao who wrote in the Administration Report of 1864-65 that "while the Sircar has not been wanting in promoting English education, it must be confessed that but little progress has been made by it as regards sound instruction in the vernacular language".⁸¹

There were some significant points to be observed about development in this period. First of all, Travancore government's educational policies in this period seem to have broadly conformed to those prevailing in British India under the East India Company. It was from 1813, with the changes made in the charter of the East India Company, that missionary enterprise in the field of education was accepted and encouraged—though quite reluctantly at times—by the Company government.⁸³ It was also attempted to develop education in India on the basis of indigenous schools, in the wake of the dictates of the 1813 Charter Act, though this policy also was implemented unevenly in different regions.⁸⁴

With the acceptance of the well known "Mecaulay's Minute" by Lord William Bent-

wick in 1835 and the demand for English education arising from some sections of the middle and upper class Indians in the Presidency towns, indigenous education and vernacular education were largely neglected in British India.⁸⁵ The situation seems to have been more or less the same in Travancore, where the government did not take much interest in vernacular education.⁸⁶

ENTRY OF CHRISTIAN MISSIONARIES

Now, what remains to be reviewed is the contribution made by the Christian missionaries in early nineteenth century. The earliest of European Christian missionaries to come for proselytisation work in the region were the Roman Catholics. They worked mainly among the lower caste, particularly the fishermen communities of the coast, from among whom they made conversions, and also among the *Mar Thomas* or Syrian Christians whom they persuaded to conform to western church organisation, traditions and rituals. One of their major educational concerns was providing religious education for prospective priests and catechists which resulted in the founding of various 'Seminaries' and theological colleges.⁸⁷ By their very nature these institutions could not have been contributed much to mass literacy.⁸⁸ Their limited scope is brought out by Adrian Moens, the then Dutch Governor in Cochin who wrote in 1781:⁸⁹ "The Seminary of Verapoly is the best . . . Having heard this Seminary much extolled, I carefully informed myself whether the pupils were instructed in other necessary subjects besides theology, but discovered that they are only taught ordinary church Latin, and that with regard to theology, they rather apply themselves to church usages than to the dogmatic part of the religion. Still less are they taught natural theology, ecclesiastical or profane history, and even less geography, physics and metaphysics, unless there is found a pupil among them, who himself wishes to take up these subjects . . . This seminary therefore has a greater reputation than it is really entitled to it"

Besides the Seminaries, the Catholic missionaries also ran some schools for primary education, especially for the fishermen communities among whom they worked.⁹⁰ These schools were emphasising the imparting of religious knowledge and prayers and hence "seem to have been essentially catechism

classes".⁹¹ So their contribution to mass literacy is open to doubt. This was very much unlike the concern of the Protestant missionaries for whom the Christian religion was very much based on the Gospels and therefore the spread of their religion required at least the basic faculties of reading and writing. This particular aspect of Protestantism and the resultant concern of Protestant missionaries in the spread of literacy, is significant in the history of education in Travancore, as they started operating in these parts by the early years of nineteenth century.

Rev Ringletaube, the first Protestant missionary to evangelise in Travancore, started a school in the village of Mylaudy in 1806.⁹² His educational activities extended to other villages as well, as shown in Table 9, during his tenure here. It was followed up by his successors who operated all over Southern Travancore under the aegis of the LMS.

Like their Catholic predecessors, Protestant missionaries also concentrated their activities among two sections of the population—lower castes and Syrian Christians—on the former for conversion⁹³ and the latter for "correction".⁹⁴ Of the two important Protestant agencies that operated in nineteenth century Travancore, the CMS⁹⁵ concentrated in Central and North Travancore and among Syrian Christians, at least initially, and the LMS⁹⁶ in South Travancore and among Shanars and other lower castes.⁹⁷ For both their purposes, educational activities were prerequisites. Therefore, we find that right from the beginning Protestant missionaries keen on both theological and higher education as well as general and primary education.

Most prominent among the educational institutions founded by the missionaries were the 'Seminaries' (boarding high schools) at Kottayam (1816) and Nagercoil (1819). Besides these two, other high schools were established in the first half of the century itself, in Neyyoor, Santapuram and Parasala in the South and Mavelikkara and Alleppey in the North.⁹⁸ Various primary schools linked to these institutions also sprang up all over South, Central and North Travancore, as shown in Table 10.

An interesting aspect of early missionary schools was that, though there was a heavy accent on religious subjects, their syllabi did not neglect secular subjects altogether.⁹⁹ Rev Mead, one of the leading pioneer LMS missionaries, wrote the following about the objectives of the Nagercoil Seminary:¹⁰⁰ "The great object of this school is the communication of religions and *useful* knowledge. When a boy leaves the Seminary we shall be able to say, from a child thou has known the holy scriptures, which are able to make thee wise into salvation. The next object of the institution is literature and language to be extended as far as our peculiar circumstances will admit" (emphasis added). In this respect the CMS was not very different from the LMS. The objectives of the

TABLE 13: DISTRIBUTION OF TEACHERS WITH DIFFERENT LEVELS OF QUALIFICATIONS IN THE SCHOOLS UNDER DIFFERENT MANagements, TRAVANCORE 1900-01

Teachers with	(Percentage)		
	Government Schools	Private-Aided Schools	Private-Unaided Schools
Professional Certificate or a Special Degree	21.2	56.9	21.8
General Qualifications	8.8	35.9	55.2
No Qualifications	2.3	8.4	9.2

Source: RAT (1900-01); Ch VII, p 61.

pioneer missionaries in establishing the CMS school in Kottayam, and of Colonel Munro in supporting them were, among other things:¹⁰¹ (a) "the maintenance and education of young men for the Priesthood, and as school masters, and also to educate youth in general, i e, the laity, to the greatest possible extent" and (b) to provide an education which would be in the Syriac, Malayalam, and English languages and would contain arithmetic, geography, etc; and above all a sound system of theology. As a result, the syllabi of the CMS Grammar School at Kottayam in 1834 as given in the scheme showed the pattern indicated in Table 11.

Apart from teaching secular subjects, the missionary schools chose Malayalam or Tamil as the medium of instruction also. This choice must have been the result of their desire to reach as many people as possible, with their gospel messages. Reflecting this concern a missionary source explained that "vernacular is the medium for the first four classes in all our schools and these four classes are our ordinary elementary schools. Beyond this, education was carried on chiefly in English and for the acquisition of English."¹⁰² The CMS missionaries established a training school in Mavelikkara around 1857 to train school masters and catechists. The reason given for the venture was that they found their counterparts in Madras being more successful in their work with the help of Tamil readers and school masters, who were trained in a similar institution at Palayamcotah.¹⁰³ The commitment of at least some missionaries to vernacular education is reflected in the argument expressed in a LMS document of early twentieth century, that, "since . . . the self-development and self-expansion of a people . . . [is the object of education] . . . for such development the use of vernacular as a medium of education seems to be the first requisite."¹⁰⁴

The only obstacle the missionaries had to face in early years of their endeavour was the want of text-books. For instance in the words of Rev Mead, "we have elementary books to

translate and print before we have even the materials necessary to put this plan into operation".¹⁰⁵ This problem was solved to some extent in early nineteenth century with the help of South Indian Christian School-Book Society¹⁰⁶ and in the second half of the century with the help of Travancore Text-Book Committee.

Evidently there was a clear perception among early Protestant missionaries that educational work is a necessary prerequisite for their religious work. Again Rev Mead wrote in December of 1844:¹⁰⁷ "We have no reason to regret. Without this branch [Education] of our work, preaching would not be practicable in many places . . . The establishment of a school at one of the villages, had led to the adult population to listen to instruction and to attend public worship." The fear of Christian children being influenced by Hindu teaching was also behind this concern for education. The same letter says that "If we had not such a college [Nagercoil] all our brightest, most intelligent Christian boys would be scattered about in Hindoo Schools. [Our schools has] to adequately shield and train our youth in the midst of a heathen people"

In effect, the missionaries, for the purposes of proselytisation, to ward Christian students from Hindu influences and also for the purposes of extending education, were active in the field. From the circumstances of the times, one should presume that more lower caste students made use of these schools than upper caste students. In a period when government schools were not admitting lower caste students, and the indigenous schools were also closed to them, to have had these missionary schools for their education was definitely a blessing.

In fact education of the lower castes—both Ezhava and Shanar as well as of "slave" castes—were an exclusive preserve of missionary schools till the government came into the field by the end of nineteenth century. As early as 1839 the missionaries are reported to have prepared "a plan for the emancipation and

education of the children of slaves in Cochin and Travancore".¹⁰⁸ They not only started separate schools for lower caste children but also admitted them in regular schools. Two of the earliest missionary schools for lower caste children were in Alleppey, started by Rev Norton in 1835, and in Kottayam, started by Rev Henry Baker Sr.¹⁰⁹ In the South, Rev Mead started a school for Pulayas and also gave monetary incentives in the form of addition to the salaries (one *fanam* for each 'slave' boy and one and a half *fanams* for every 'slave' girl) of teachers bringing lower caste children to schools.¹¹⁰ Within one year of introducing this scheme, in the 1840s, 1000 'slave' children are reported to have been brought into Christian schools in Neyyoor region alone.¹¹¹

Another area in which missionaries were active was that of female education. The first girl's school (of the 'modern' type) in the state was started by Mrs Baker and Mrs Fenn, both wives of missionaries, in Kottayam in 1818.¹¹² Mrs Mead, another missionary wife, started a school in Nagercoil in 1819.¹¹³ These were followed by several such schools in different parts of the state. To promote female education, a pamphlet entitled "On the Advantages of Female Education" was printed as Tract No 31 of the LMS Press at Nagercoil and was distributed free by the missionaries. The 'Liteitia-Bona-Julia-Knill' schools initiated by Rev Mead in Neyyoor were meant for girls; from among whom two each from every school were especially trained to go and start girl's schools in different villages. As a result of these concerted activities there were 15 girls' schools and 361 girl students in Southern region alone by 1837.¹¹⁴ The number of girls in Southern missionary schools increased to 998 by 1840 and to 1,468 by 1857. Meanwhile in the North there were 444 girls in CMS schools by 1857.¹¹⁵

In spite of all these efforts female education was never a roaring success. One reason could have been the limited objectives of the missionaries themselves.¹¹⁶ In any case, throughout the century, there were problems in attracting girls to schools. Therefore, as late as 1906, missionary sources lamented that "it is disappointing to note the small number of girls in some of the schools".¹¹⁷ Yet, even the limited number were noteworthy, considering the fact that most of them would have been from lower castes, the most uneducated section of the population.

Technical training was also an area which was initiated by the missionaries. A school of industry was started in Nagercoil in 1820, followed by several such schools elsewhere.¹¹⁸ Subjects taught in these schools included printing, book-binding, tanning and currying of leather, etc. For girls, training in lace-making and embroidery work was provided.

So it was in the areas of lower caste education, female education and technical training, all areas neglected by the traditional system, and areas not yet taken up by government, that

TABLE 14: DISTRIBUTION OF STUDENTS IN DIFFERENT TYPES OF VERNACULAR SCHOOLS, 1892—ESTIMATES OF THE PROVERTHY SCHOOLS COMMITTEE

Type of School	No of Schools	Nominal Roll No of Students	Actual Attendance ^a	Percentage of Students
Proverthy (Govt Primary)	187	8,145	9,996	12
District (Govt Middle and High Schools)	26	3,205	3,807	5
Grant-in-aid	1225	51,556	51,556	64
Private (Indigenous)	500	15,000 ^b	15,000	19
Total	1938	78,176	78,176	100

Notes: a The number of students in Proverthy and District schools reported to the Committee was found to be underestimates. When the estimates for 28 schools were cross-checked, they were found to differ at a ratio of 1655: 1966, between nominal roll number and actual attendance. This ratio was used to revise the estimates to get actual attendance.
b The Figures relating to private schools are only approximate.

Source: "Proverthy Schools Committee, Provisional Report", in CSF No 13399, GAD'(E).

missionaries were engaged in. In their efforts they were assisted by the Travancore government. Not only for their ‘Seminaries’ but also for the whole educational efforts, including the primary schools, government aid was forthcoming. The assistance from government was indeed a great help to the missions, particularly for the LMS which was not a very affluent organisation. The main influence behind these grants, originally, was evidently that of Colonel Munro, a zealous Christian, who viewed missionary education as a means of ‘anglicising’ India, and thus a prerequisite for the consolidation of British power.¹¹⁹ As early as 1813 Munro asked for a report on the educational activities of the LMS and enquired whether they would require any financial support. This resulted in the grant of 61 *cottahs* of paddy land for the LMS, which was later extended.¹²⁰ Similarly, the funds for establishing the CMS College came from the interest of a sum of money (Rs 10,500) invested in the Company’s bonds, which originally was received by Macaulay—Munro’s predecessor, from the Travancore government as recompence for ‘acts of oppression’ committed against the Syrian Christians.¹²¹ Besides, the CMS received the Munro island—seven miles in circumference—from the government by the *nittu* dated 5th

Makaram, 994 ME (1819 AD).¹²² Munro’s personal interest in giving jobs in government and in British establishments (including missionary establishments) to Syrian Christians and Christians converts must have attracted some students to missionary schools. Munro invited missionaries to send “such Syrian as want employment” and favoured them with appointments to various positions including that of jugdes.¹²³ In spite of such efforts at least initially most of the students from CMS ‘college’ went back to their traditional livelihood or found employment with the missionaries themselves as shown in Table 12. The Nagercoil Seminary did produce students like Nanoo Pillai and Ram Row who rose up to become Dewans of the state.¹²⁴ But a strategy of attracting higher caste people to Christianity through English education and government service was either not followed or was not very successful here. Throughout the first half of the century CMS missionaries are reported to have had not more than ten converts from among the Nairs.¹²⁵ In fact the missionaries felt that “the heathens of this caste are the chief opponents to the spread of Christianity”. Government jobs could not have been used to attract converts from higher castes in Travancore, since they in any case would

have got such jobs under the Hindu Royal government. The preceding review of Protestant missionary efforts in the field of education brings forth certain significant points. First of all, they provided more or less the only recourse to modern education in many parts of the state in the first half of the century. These missionary schools grew up alongside and not as substitutes to the indigenous schools. Even if the missionaries had reservations about the indigenous system they could not have adversely influenced them, given the fact that they had their own clientele and that the government did not take a policy unfavourable to them. With their involvement in vernacular education, missionary schools must have made considerable contributions to spread of mass literacy. Besides all this we should specially take note of their contributions to female and lower caste education—sectors largely neglected by government as well as the traditional system.

DEVELOPMENT IN SECOND HALF OF NINETEENTH CENTURY

It is in the second half of the century that education in Travancore really expanded and really acquired the characteristics of a ‘modern’ system. To be remembered in this context is the fact that all over India the indigenous system of education was crumbling, leaving a large gap in the educational traditions of the Indian people. It is this gap that was being bridged by a ‘modern’ educational system in Travancore and elsewhere. The factors that made Travancore’s efforts in this direction comparatively more successful than efforts elsewhere require explanation. In 1864-65, as noted earlier, “the pupils under instruction in all the private schools in the country”, including missionary schools, were estimated to be around 40,000.¹²⁶ This position of the indigenous school system could not have remained intact for long. With the impressive growth in number of government schools and private schools receiving grant-in-aid, there were more outlets for acquiring education. As a result the proportion of students acquiring education in indigenous system alone might have decreased. More significantly, in the second half of the nineteenth century, demand for education started shifting away from training within a strictly traditional curricula of the indigenous school, for reasons to be explained later. This also meant that more parents started sending their children to ‘modern’ schools, in addition to the indigenous schools. Against this background was the fact that the Travancore government, in their scheme for educational development, attempted to ‘upgrade’ the indigenous schools and integrate them into the ‘modern’ educational system. The integration of indigenous schools seems to have been done in two ways. One was to leave the realm of the most elementary education, pre-

TABLE 15: PARTICULARS OF GOVERNMENT VERNACULAR SCHOOLS IN TRAVANCORE, 1866-69

Name of School	Date of Opening	Number of Students 1868-69	Number of Teachers 1868-69
Trivandrum School	August 1866	270	9
Branch School, Thycaud	May 1867	64	3
Normal School, Trivandrum	September 1866	30	1
Girls School, Trivandrum	April 1867	60	3
Nedumangad	February 1867	54	3
Neyyattinkara	May 1867	90	4
Vilavancod	May 1867	69	3
Chirayinkil	August 1867	71	3
Quilon	September 1866	17	2
Ambalapuzha	July 1867	68	2
Vycome	May 1867	40	3
Kottar Tamil School	—	65	3
Eraniel	January 1868	46	2
Kalcilam	August 1867	70	3
Thovala	June 1868	105	2
Kottarakara	July 1868	12	1
Karunagappally	January 1868	50	2
Kartigapally	October 1867	76	3
Mavelikara	October 1867	50	3
Thiruvalla	February 1868	76	2
Kottar Malayalam School	May 1868	90	3
Nagaycoolam	July 1869	62	2
Patanapuram	May 1869	34	1
Kunnathur	August 1868	95	3
Chengannur	August 1868	108	3
Alleppey	July 1869	49	2
Kottayam	May 1869	48	2
Sherthallai	May 1867	44	2
Paravoor	July 1869	48	1
Total Schools: 29			

Source: ‘Report of the Vernacular Education Dept, ME 1044’, Comm No 65, from Dir Vern; Ed Dept, ME 1043’, Comm No 9, From Dir Vern Ed Dept to the Dewan, dated March 10 1869, in CSF No 290: GAD(E).

paratory to the entry into modern system, to the indigenous schools, and schools similar to them run by the missionaries.¹²⁷ The other method was to revise both the content and method of teaching in these schools so as to bring them within the purview of the formal system as grant-in-aid schools.¹²⁸ As early as 1867, the Director of Vernacular Education wrote in one of the earliest reports on his department that "in view to satisfy the demand [for admission into the Central School at Trivandrum] it was thought desirable to make the private schools in the town¹²⁹ assimilate their system of teaching to that pursued in the Sircar schools and thus render them capable of useful instruction".¹³⁰ That such an objective was maintained throughout the century and well into early twentieth century is evident from the fact that the Dewan of Travancore in 1908 observed the fall in number of unaided (*pial*) schools and the rise in the number of aided schools as an "encouraging" development, as it was an indication that "a larger number of institutions are endeavouring to conform to the rules so as to deserve recognition and aid from the Sircar".¹³¹ Given the fact that the government's primary interest was in development of vernacular education, it could not have overlooked the potential of the indigenous system in this field.

Details of the actual implementation of the scheme for upgrading and/or integrating indigenous schools to the modern system are not available. After whatever efforts at integration that the government did, at the end of the century we find the largest percentage of teachers without proper qualifications teaching in the private unaided schools, most of which were off-shoots of indigenous schools (see Table 13).

Nevertheless there are reasons to believe that it had been implemented fairly well in the second half of the century. In 1891, the Census of that year found that around 1,300 indigenous schools existed in the state with about 50,000 students studying in them.¹³² Besides these there seems to have been another 500 indigenous schools,¹³³ estimated by the Proverthy School Committee of 1892 to be catering to around 15,000 students (see Table 14). This means almost doubling of the enrolment of students in indigenous schools from 1864 to 65. But with the expansion of the 'modern' school system in Travancore, the indigenous schools were accommodating only around 50 per cent of all students.

This would mean that far from being destroyed in the wake of the rising modern system, the indigenous system continued to serve the cause of education in the second half of the nineteenth century, complementing the 'new' schools. The shift to modern schools happened only among those sections of the population who aspired for positions in the administration and in the European plantation and trading companies.¹³⁴ The rest of the potential students seems to have remained with the in-

digenous system. This is perhaps reflected in the observation of the Proverthy Schools Committee¹³⁵ that the richer classes go to Proverthy (government) schools while poorer students attend indigenous schools. Another possibility is that indigenous schools were resorted to even by those students who aspired for government and company jobs for the most elementary education.

Moreover, the modern schools were held in suspicion by the more tradition-bound sections of the people. While missionary schools like the Nagercoil Seminary suffered "in consequence of vague rumours of alarm created by ignorant folks who misinterpreted its object",¹³⁶ even government vernacular schools in which "education was conducted according to the English system"¹³⁷ were not spared such suspicions. The Report of the Vernacular Education Department for ME 1044¹³⁸ mentions how "the people of Vycome had been labouring under a wrong impression regarding the character of the instruction given in the vernacular schools ... [imagining] ... that the books used treated of matters calculated to undermine the Hindoo religion". Therefore, indigenous schools would have continued to attract sizeable number of students until even the most tradition-minded of the parents were forced to send their children to modern schools, which could have happened only much later.

From the preceding review we may conclude that, just as in the first half of the nineteenth century, the indigenous education system did contribute a sizeable base of educated or literate population on which the modern system could build further on in the second half as well. Moreover, in the second half of the century, in spite of the fulfilled development of the modern system, the indigenous system survived, either existing side by side with the modern system or integrated into the latter in the form of "private unaided schools", and strongly supplementing the efforts of the modern schools. Both these factors helped to prevent a break in the educational traditions of the people of the state, and thereby contributed considerably to the comparatively high rate of literacy in Travancore, in the nineteenth century.

GOVERNMENTAL INTERVENTION IN EDUCATION

In the second half of the nineteenth century the government school system expanded quite considerably. In the 1860s, under the administration of Dewan T Madhava Rao (1862-1874) the Travancore government entered significantly into the field of education. Though the Sircar school system was of very limited proportions at the time of his assuming responsibility as Dewan, Madhava Rao¹³⁹ gave shape to a fairly ambitious education policy. The main thrust of this policy was to appropriate at once, every year, a sum of Rs 20,000 towards the establishment of vernacular schools in the districts, to be conducted on a sound plan.

The comprehensive plan for educational

TABLE 16: NUMBER OF VERNACULAR SCHOOLS AND THEIR ADMISSION IN TRAVANCORE, 1865-66 TO 1904-05¹⁴¹

Year	Vernacular Schools (Sircar and Aided)	Students
1865-66	12	865
1866-67	20	1383
1867-68	49	3455
1868-69	48	3639
1869-70	53	3075
1870-71	188	8064
1871-72	216	8452
1874-75	233	11466
1879-80	598	29363
1884-85	857	43513
1889-90	979	47044
1894-95	1606	82820
1899-1900	1283	83058
1904-1905	1483	99757

Source: Robin Jeffry (1976), Ch III, p 80.

TABLE 17: GOVERNMENT EXPENDITURE ON EDUCATION, TRAVANCORE, 1871-1905

Year	Amount (in Rupees, 1000s)
1871-72	110
1884-85	218
1894-95	596
1904-05	641

Source: PRG Nair (1978), Ch III, p 52, Ta 3.6.

development envisaged by Madhava Rao had three major aspects. First of all, the government undertook to establish schools of its own. Secondly, private agencies were to be encouraged to start schools, through liberal grant-in-aid. Thirdly, indigenous schools were to be upgraded and integrated into the system. The main thrust of the programme was the expansion of vernacular education. In order to facilitate the expansion of vernacular education under government auspices, a Vernacular Education Department was organised with a separate Director and two Inspectors for the two regions into which the state was divided.¹⁴⁰ This department succeeded in setting up vernacular schools in different parts of the state in the 1860s itself (Table 15).

The comprehensive scheme for educational development initiated by Madhava Rao was consistently followed up throughout the second half of the century; as the increasing trend in vernacular schools and their admissions in Travancore, would show (see Table 16).

In 1877, a scheme for starting one school—more if necessary—in every *proverthy* was put into effect. Under this scheme, people of the locality were to provide the school building, upon which the government would give a grant of one *fanam* per pupil for teaching facilities. By 1881 the target seems to have been almost achieved. Besides, in 1885, some of the government English schools, established in the first

half of the century, and died down subsequently, were revived. In the meantime private schools were also expanding with the incentive of grant-in-aid.

The expansion in government educational institutions was supplemented by the development of an adequate support system. To rectify the problem faced by the growing vernacular school system in finding adequate text books, a Book Committee was organised in 1867 with the charge of preparing original or translated text books.¹⁴² Translations were made from both Sanskrit and English. Between 1867 and 1872, 12 titles were brought out by the Committee. Sometime in the 1870s the Committee seems to have ceased to function but it was revived in 1883. Kerala Varma Valia Koil Thampuran, a leading poet and well known scholar, was Chairman of the Committee for considerable number of years and the leading force behind its activities.¹⁴³ As has been pointed out,¹⁴⁴ "through the various categories brought out under the auspices of the Book Committee, a consciously planned literature for juveniles was also emerging. The graded textbooks were obvious, but perhaps not important, instances. More significant were biographies and other categories"

The distribution of books issued by the Committee was undertaken by the Sircar Book Depot, established as early as 1866. A review

in late nineteenth century found that from a financial point of view it has been very successful and as regards its public utility "it has ... met a felt want".¹⁴⁵ In the light of this, a scheme was introduced in 1897 to start branch depots in Kottar, Kulithoray, Quilon, Mavelikara, Alleppey and Parur.¹⁴⁶ The work of these agencies was greatly assisted by the work of the government press set up in Trivandrum in the 1840s, as well as the two presses founded by missionaries in Kottayam and Nagercoil.¹⁴⁷ By the last quarter of the century, the numerous newspapers, periodicals and literary journals which appeared in Malayalam gave a great impetus to the growth of education.¹⁴⁸

Another important support service was the Normal School for teachers' training, started in 1865. This developed into a Teachers' Training College by 1889. As early as 1868 it was reported that 36 out of the 57 "Masters and Undermasters" in government vernacular schools had training in this institution.¹⁴⁹

As a result of such governmental intervention in the field of education, governmental expenditure on this count increased substantially as shown in Table 17. This was much more so in the last decade of the century when in 1891-92, the Proverthy School Committee recommended on the one hand, a reduction of fees in schools and on the other, opening of 51 new schools in different *proverthies*.¹⁵⁰

Following the Christian missionaries, the government also entered into the fields of female education, higher education and very late in the century, even into lower caste education. The first girls' school started by government was at Karamana in Trivandrum in 1859. This was followed in 1864 by the Maharaja's English High School for girls. Reports of the Vernacular Education Department for ME 1043 and 1044 (1868 and 1869) claimed that the school in Karamana had "earned a good reputation".¹⁵¹ Success of this school seems to have created a desire elsewhere also to have girls' schools. By the end of the century there were several girls schools in the state run by the government.

Similarly the government entered the field of higher education as well. The Raja's Free School in Trivandrum became a High School in 1866 and was recognised as the Maharaja's College in 1869, presenting matriculates for the degree examinations of the Madras University.¹⁵² By the end of the century there was an Ayurveda College, a Sanskrit College, a Law College, a Women's College and a Teachers' Training College in Trivandrum run by the government.¹⁵³

As early as 1865, Madhava Rao, mooted the idea of a school for *shanars* and other lower castes in Southern Travancore through his Circular No 2965, dated September 13, 1865. This proposal received mixed reactions from the people whom he consulted. While one person felt that¹⁵⁴ "a good Anglo-Vernacular School,

such as the Sircar would establish, would directly be well taken advantage of by the castes for whom it is proposed to establish it ... [and that] ... as many as 50 boys willing to pay one *fanam* per mensum would be ready at once to join any such school", another felt that¹⁵⁵ "a school for Shanars who do not freely mix with Sudras, etc, would prove a failure".

In any case, government does not seem to have gone ahead with this scheme and lower caste children remained excluded from government schools for the greater part of the nineteenth century.¹⁵⁶ In a letter to the Government of Madras in April 1870, Ballard, the then British Resident, mentioned exclusion from government schools as one of the main disabilities that lower caste people were subjected to in Travancore.¹⁵⁷ Though the high school at Trivandrum was theoretically open to all castes, he pointed out that not a single *Ilava*, *Shanar* or fisherman (not professing Christianity) was studying there at that time.¹⁵⁸

In 1871, there was once again a suggestion to open government schools to lower caste children.¹⁵⁹ This also seems not to have been put into effect. But by 1895 there are records mentioning "the repeated Proclamations of the Maharajas that all classes, without distinction of caste or creed, may have access to public institutions"¹⁶⁰ and also that at least *Ezhavas* having access to the Maharaja's High School and College at Trivandrum and to two or three district schools.

Government's efforts in the field of education was considerably by the end of the century. Schools run by Travancore government formed 11.6 per cent of all the schools in the state and the students studying in them formed 24.8 per cent of the total student population.¹⁶¹

EXPANSION OF MISSIONARY EDUCATIONAL EFFORTS

In the second half of the nineteenth century the private agencies were also in the field quite actively. Most important among them were the Christian missionaries and the local Christians.

On the base created in the first half of the nineteenth century, when missionary institutions were almost the only recourse to modern education, there was a massive expansion as well as diversification of missionary educational activities in the second half. As already mentioned, the diversification started in the first half was mainly into female education, technical training and education of the lower castes. Of these, their contribution to lower caste education was commendable when we consider the fact that between 1875 and 1891, the number of literates among 'native Christians' who were predominantly lower caste converts, doubled.¹⁶²

The growth of missionary education got a boost in the second half of the century with the offer of grant-in-aid from the government. In fact liberal government aid, both in cash and

TABLE 18: DENOMINATION-WISE DISTRIBUTION OF SCHOOLS UNDER CHRISTIAN MANAGEMENT, 1908

Denomination/Diocese	Number of Schools
London Mission Society	393
Salvation Army	74
Diocese of Travancore-Cochin (CMS)	296
Church of England Zenana Missionary Society	16
Protestant Total	779
Archdiocese of Verapoly	130
Diocese of Quilon	147
Diocese of Cochin	92
Latin Catholic Total	369
The Vicariat Apostolic of Changanacherry	424
The Vicariat Apostolic of Ernakulam	178
The Vicariat Apostolic of Trichur	186
Syrian Catholic Total	778
The Syrian Archdiocese of Malankara (Jacobite)	175
St Thomas Syrian Metropolitan See of Malabar (Mar Thoma)	97
Non-Catholic Syrian Total	272
Grand Total	2208

Note: These statistics cover schools not only in Travancore but also in Cochin and perhaps even a few in Malabar.

Source: *Almanac* (1908), pp 106-122.

in land, was available to missionary enterprises even earlier. But most of the aid went mainly for the two seminaries in Kottayam and Nagercoil. With the introduction of grant-in-aid in 1868-69,¹⁶³ even primary schools run by missionaries could look up to governmental assistance. In 1881, in the light of increasing governmental expenditure on vernacular education, it was decided to encourage more private enterprise in the field of education.¹⁶⁴

With the acceptance of grant-in-aid and the related governmental supervision, the predominance of religious matters in missionary schools had to be curtailed. With the grant-in-aid scheme, a special Inspector was appointed for schools receiving aid. One of the conditions for giving grant was that the school should adopt the same course of instruction and books as followed in government schools. Teachers in aided schools were given training in those subjects they were deficient in, at the government Normal school, during holidays.¹⁶⁵ Institutions with a predominantly religious curriculum were not eligible for grants.¹⁶⁶

The general standard of missionary schools, both in terms of subjects covered and books used seems to have improved. Moreover a well-knit organisation, with high schools in major towns and primary schools in villages around and linked to these high schools, also was developed. Missionaries themselves endeavoured to upgrade their institutions so as to conform to the requirements set by the government. Basic standards were stipulated for admission to the high schools. Teachers with 'superior education'¹⁶⁷ were employed to regularly inspect village schools and to supervise their functioning so as to make the students coming out of them adequately prepared for admission to the high schools. Practices such as allowing the same teacher to teach students upto third or fourth standard were stopped at the instance of the government.

SYRIAN CHRISTIAN ENTERPRISE IN EDUCATION

Besides the Protestant missionaries, Syrian Christians (this term describes indigenous Christians who were not converted by Western missionaries) also made significant contributions to educational development in nineteenth century Travancore. Among them, it was the non-Catholic Syrians who entered the field of modern education first, in association with the missionaries, particularly the CMS. Their collaboration with CMS, in modern education, paid off in terms of lucrative jobs in companies as well as the government. This prompted them to send more of their children to schools and also to start schools of their own.

We have earlier noted how Colonel Munro favoured non-Catholic Syrians with appointments in government and how Syrian youth, trained in CMS and LMS schools got lucrative jobs in trading companies. But the close collaboration between the Syrian church and the CMS came to an end around 1835-40. Then the

Syrian church took exclusive control of the famous Kottayam Seminary. At the time of the split with missionaries a section of the Syrian church took favourably to Anglican persuasions in general and this led to the origins of a new church, the Reformed Syrian Church or the *Mar Thoma* Church. It is interesting to observe that the ensuing rivalry between the two groups of Syrian Christians got most intensely reflected in a competition to start more schools.¹⁶⁸ By the end of the century we find the Syrian Orthodox Church registering a society under the Companies Act to manage and co-ordinate their educational activities.¹⁶⁹

All this while the Catholic Syrians were comparatively inactive in the field of education. Evidently, the Syrian Christians like any other community of some means had access to education in the traditional system. The early CMS missionaries when they first arrived found at least two schools being run by the non-Catholic Syrians around Kottayam. According to early Jesuit sources, *ariyiliruth*, the ritual associated with the beginning of schooling, was common among the Syrians.¹⁷⁰

The Portuguese Jesuits and Italian Carmelites, who came to hold sway over the administration of Catholics from the sixteenth century, did not have any real interest in modern education, particularly English education. For Jesuits and Carmelites, English language itself was associated with the Anglican rebellion against Roman Catholic supremacy in Europe. This has resulted in only a few Catholic children seeking modern education at that time. The CMS Grammar school at Kottayam in 1834 had just one "Romo-Syrian" student, in a total of 60, which consisted of 41 non-Catholic Syrians, 17 Nayers and one Brahmin.¹⁷¹

From the 1880s onwards Catholics started establishing schools. Once they entered the field—strong as they were in terms of numbers as well as wealth—they made spectacular progress. Between 1882 and 1887 the number of schools under Catholic management increased from around 10 to over 1,000.¹⁷² This change in attitude occurred at a time when Syrian Catholic leaders were gradually being allowed, under pressure, into the higher realms of the church hierarchy. Those of them who made it to the top did not share their European predecessors' antipathy towards modern education.

Fr Immanuel (Mani) Nidhiry, Pontifical Vicar General (1889-1892) and the most prominent Syrian Catholic leader of his time, exhorted Syrians to start English schools. In a speech at Mulanthuruthy he is reported to have said¹⁷³ that any day an 'English' school will be a more prized asset than the gold crosses of Kuravilangad and Athirampuzha which can be stolen. Similarly when he was asked to arbitrate in a dispute between two groups of the trustees of the Parish of Palai, one wanting to use church funds to build a bathing ghat in the river and another wanting to start a school, Fr

Nidhiry strongly recommended the school and is believed to have suggested that all excess resources of the parish should be utilised for this one purpose.¹⁷⁴ Fr Kuriakose Elias Chavara, another rare Syrian Vicar General in a missionary dominated church, had also started a school in Mannanam, besides calling upon Syrian parishes to start schools.¹⁷⁵

By the end of nineteenth century, necessary organisations, even cutting across denominational barriers, started emerging among Syrian Christians creating adequate instruments for educational expansion. Under the leadership of Nidheerickal Mani Kathanar, a Catholic, and Pulikkottil Mar Dinossius, a Jacobite, an inter-denominational organisation called the Nazrani Jathiya Aikya Sangham was organised in the 1880s. Apart from the fact that these two important Syrian Christian denominations came together for a joint venture, when denominational rivalries were the order of the day, it also had an ambitious scheme to start (a) English high schools and girls' schools in all Christian centres, (b) a central college in Kottayam, (c) libraries in all parishes, and (d) godowns in Christian centres to store surplus grains till prices turned favourable to farmers.¹⁷⁶ A bank was planned to help finance the schemes and the initial investment was to be raised through a lottery.¹⁷⁷ The *Nazrani Deepika*, well known Malayalam daily, was started by the Sangham, as its opening editorial (dated April 15, 1887) put it, "to explain to the public the benefits of the Sangham and the schools, etc, proposed to be started by the Sangham". After the Sangham broke up, due to non-cooperation by the missionary authorities of the Catholic church and other reasons, the two Syrian factions came together once again under the Travancore and Cochin Christian Association with the objective of, among other things, "bringing to the notice of the government, the claims of Christians to preferment in the public service"¹⁷⁸

Apart from the organisations mentioned above, another factor which helped the educational expansion of Syrian Christians was the availability of liberal grant-in-aid from the government. As a result of all this, by the end of nineteenth century, indigenous Christians contributed relatively more than the missionaries to the educational development of the state, as shown in Table 18.

One factor to be noted regarding the educational activities of the Syrians, as highly caste-conscious as any of the higher Hindu castes, was that it did not provide for lower caste education.¹⁷⁹ In this regard, whatever contribution that was made, apart from the work of Protestant missionaries, were by the Laun Catholic dioceses, which remained under western missionary leadership right upto the twentieth century. But the overall dimensions of their educational activities remained relatively small as they entered the field only quite reluctantly. Nagam Aiyar in 1906¹⁸⁰ mentions how they "of late" have undertaken educational

work in right earnest. He says they had three high schools, 35 English and vernacular schools and 285 *Pariah* schools, besides being involved in female education. It should be noted that their contribution to lower caste education evidently was very significant, a field neglected by their Syrian counterparts.

The educational efforts reviewed above resulted at the close of the century in 25.5 per cent of schools in Travancore being grant-receiving private schools and 27.8 per cent of all students studying in these schools.¹⁸¹ Most of these schools must have been Christian schools, though certainly not all. The Proverthy School Committee Report makes out that all grant-in-aid schools are run by missionaries.¹⁸² Even if we take the term 'missionaries' to mean Christians of all descriptions, still such an assumption is certainly an exaggeration. In 1893, schools run by missionaries numbered 879 out of 2,219 institutions classified as private. It is quite possible that most of these schools were receiving grants since they might have easily conformed to the standards stipulated for such grants. In the last decade of the century, the share of missionary schools in the total grant-receiving institutions must have come down as other agencies entered the field with enthusiasm.

(To be Concluded)

Notes

- 1 Census (1982) A, p 3, and Census (1982) B, p 1.
- 2 State Planning Board (1982), p 13.
- 3 First position in female education as well; but were behind Ajmere, Merwar and Bombay in English education. See V Nagam Aiya (1906), Vol II, Ch VII, p 32.
- 4 Malabar was behind some other districts, in the percentage of students in general population, as early as 1881, as Table A would show.
- 5 P R G Nair (1978), Ch III, p 27.
- 6 See Table B.
- 7 V Nagam Aiya (1906), Vol II, Ch VII, p 32.
- 8 See Table C.
- 9 P R G Nair (1978), Ch III; Robin Jeffry (1976), Ch IV, reviews the pattern of educational development in 19th century Travancore.
- 10 RAT (1902), Appendix, Statistical Returns, Ch VII, p Cix, ta 70.
- 11 Percentages were calculated, excluding Lower Secondary and Upper Primary Schools and including schools for teaching Quran. See RAMP (1898-99), Ch VII, p 216.
- 12 Census (1903 A), Vol XXVI, Ch VII, p 210.
- 13 Special and Training Schools constituted another 0.3 per cent.
- 14 Comparison with Madras Presidency is impossible since medium wise data are not available for Madras Government Schools.
- 15 P R G Nair (1978).
- 16 Known after Charles Wood, then President of the Board of Control of the East India Company, was the first comprehensive educational policy statement for British India. It was issued in 1853. See Don Adams (1970), Ch III, p 75, and J P Naik and S Nurullah (1974), Ch IV, p 133.
- 17 Education in British India had become 'top heavy' by the second half of the 19th century, for various reasons. Most important reason was that "English was made the language of administration" and "increasingly the new education became the pass to employment in the public service." Anil Seal (1968), Ch I, p 17, and also see S Velayudhan (1977), Vol IV.
- 18 Though we get accounts of the difficulties involved in getting to school in Kerala, it is apparent that for most people there was a school within reachable distance. In cases where the school is not within a day's travel, relatives' houses or friend's houses were available for students to stay. For accounts of school-going experiences of early 20th century see P Kesava Dev (1977) and Thakazhi Sivasankaran Pillai (1983).
- 19 The difficulty in reaching schools, when the distribution of schools is such as one in 550 sq miles, one in 267 sq miles and one in 133 sq miles as the case was in some states of Western India, can easily be imagined. See Ian Copland (1982), Ch IV, p 125, TA 4.1.
- 20 For a comprehensive description of the different systems of education prevalent in traditional Indian Society, see C Hayavadana Rao (ed): (1929), Vol IV, Ch VII.
- 21 P N Kunjan Pillai (1970), Ch XVI, p 267.
- 22 Separate schools for technical education do not seem to have existed in the traditional system. Such knowledge was transferred through apprenticeship. Mathew M Kuzhiveli (1965), Ch III, p 3; for details of *salais* and *mutts* see N Vedamani Manuel (1972), p 36 and K J Leenose (1947), pp xx-xxi.
- 23 N V Manuel (1972) and S Desivinayagam Pillai (1929), p 203.
- 24 See Kerala *Kaumudhi* (1983); N Jayachandran Thodiyur (1980) and *Deepika* (1980).
- 25 N V Manuel (1972), p 32.
- 26 K J Leenose (1947), p xix, N V Manuel (1972), pp 61-62; M M Kuzhiveli (1965), pp 24-25; and K K N Kurup (1977), p 8.
- 27 Velayudhan Panikkasseri (1977), pp 191-93; N V Manuel (1972), p 32; and K J Leenose (1947), p xix.
- 28 For detailed description of traditional primary schools in Madras, see J P Naik and S Nurullah (1974), Ch I, pp 6-8 and in Kerala, see M M Kuzhiveli (1965), Ch IV.
- 29 Fra Bartholomeo was an Austrian missionary who visited Verapoly in 1777-1789. V Panikkasseri (1977), pp 191-93.
- 30 P N Chopra, *et al* (1979), Vol III, Ch XII, p 206.
- 31 M M Kuzhiveli (1965), Ch IV, p 55.
- 32 N V Manuel (1972), p 33, and K J Leenose (1947), p xix.
- 33 C Achyutha Menon (1911), Ch IX, p 290.
- 34 Kathleen Gough (1975), p 134; William Logan (1906), p 109 and V Nagam Aiya (1906), Vol II, p 445.
- 35 K Gough (1975).
- 36 K Gough (1975), p 151.
- 37 Ibid.
- 38 P K Balakrishnan (1983).
- 39 P K Balakrishnan (1983).
- 40 V Nagam Aiya (1906), Vol II, Ch VII, p 34.
- 41 V Nagam Aiya (1906).
- 42 S N Mukherjee (1951), p 16.
- 43 See A Aiyappan (1965).
- 44 Kathleen Gough observes (p 151) that the consequences of 'widespread' literacy as outlined by Goody and Walt in the same collection were not found valid in the case of Kerala. Goody in his introduction (p 132) mentions the failure of Kerala Society to develop a strong interest in history or science. Literacy did not work towards the breakdown of caste barriers either. According to Goody and Walt one of the main consequences of literacy is that (p 40) "the use of writing as an autonomous code of communication by the majority of the members of society." In the case of India, their finding was that "a strong tendency for writing to be used as a help to memory ... and under such conditions its influence tended towards the consolidation of the existing cultural tradition" (p 40). We tend to believe that Kerala followed the case of India in this matter. Moreover, the facts known about Kerala society make us believe that Kerala did not have "an unusually high proportion" of literates in comparison with the rest of India. (See Jack Goody (1975)). Besides Gough, M M Kuzhiveli (1965), Ch IV, p 55, also claims that Kerala had a level of literacy higher than what prevails now. His argument rests on the point that *kudipallikudams* existed in every *kara*, and that *everyone* (emphasis ours) could write and read. (Quoting Elik Recklaus in "Ancient Nairs.") We have our doubts about how many were allowed to make use of the *kudipallikudams*. Moreover, even in the case of Nairs, the claim of hundred per cent literacy seems far-fetched.
- 45 B Sobhanan (1977).
- 46 Unlike wars of olden times, Martanda Varma's army fought battles in such a way as to affect the civilian population as well. For details see K M Panikar (1931), and A P Ibrahim Kunji (1976).
- 47 Unification of different principalities under a central rule "helped in dissolving dialectical distinctions and developing a prose of fairly uniform standard, primarily for administrative purposes". (Krishna Chaitanya (1971), Ch VII, p 166.) The impact this had on the spread of education is not known. Moreover, we have no evidence of a centralised education system being set up.
- 48 Centralisation could have affected the traditional village system (though it was weak in Kerala) which could have adversely affected all the services maintained in the village, including education. On the relationship between village administration and services maintained see Vera Anstey (1957), Vol XVI, p 153 and for details of administrative centralisation in Travancore, see A P Ibrahim Kunji (1976), Ch IX, pp 101-109 and (1975), Vol II, Part IV, pp 425-448.
- 49 P N Kunjan Pillai (1966).

50 Revenue Manual (1915), Vol IV, S Velu Pillai (1933), Introduction, p 2, T C Var-ghese (1970), pp 30, 146 and S Pandalai (1912).

51 For details see A Das Gupta (1967).

52 V Nagam Aiya (1906), Vol I, Ch VI, p 411, and B Sobhanan (1977), Ch IV, p 74.

53 Travancore's traditional industry—particularly weaving, which was described as "next in importance to agriculture"—suffered a setback in the last four decades of nineteenth century. (V Nagam Aiya (1906), Vol III, Ch XVII, pp 287-9.) The possibility of such a decline having started earlier cannot be overruled; for Macaulay, British Resident in Travancore in early 19th century estimated that the number of looms working in Travancore had declined to around 500 from more than 2000 in the last decade of 18th century. See B Sobhanan (1977), Ch VI, p 76

54 Ward and Conner (1898).

55 Ward and Conner (1898), pp 46-47, 128-129.

56 P N Chopra, *et al*, (1979), Vol III, Ch XV, p 223.

57 This is the proportion used in the 1822 Survey Report to work out the share of the school-going age group in the total population.

58 J P Naik and S Nurullah (1974), Ch I, pp 4-5.

59 The practice of tutoring at home seems to have been common in Kerala among the well-to-do families who had family tutors to whom sometimes even children of the poorer families of the neighbourhood were sent for learning. See C Achyutha Menon (1911), Ch IX, p 290.

60 University Committee (1924), Ch II, pp 12-13.

61 It is claimed that in the first decade of 19th century there was an attempt at building schools in every *kara* by the administration of Dewan Velu Thampi. If this effort really took place, then, it will most probably be the first instance of governmental involvement in popular education. P R G Nair (1976), fn 19, and History (1970), Vol I, p 73.

62 University Committee (1924), pp 12-13.

63 Ibid.

TABLE A: PERCENTAGE OF POPULATION UNDER INSTRUCTION OR INSTRUCTED
MADRAS PRESIDENCY, 1881

Madras	26.0	Madura	8.7	Kristna	5.5
Tinnevely	12.1	S Arcot	8.3	Kurnool	5.1
Tanjore	11.7	N Arcot	7.6	Cuddapah	4.8
Chingleput	10.8	Bellary	6.1	Salem	4.7
Malabar	10.7	Nellore	5.9	Godavari	4.5
Nilgiris	9.0	S Kanava	5.8	Ganjam	3.7
Trichnopoly	8.8	Coimbatore	5.7	Vizagapatnam	2.5

Source: Anil Seal (1968), Ch II, Ta 32, p 106.

TABLE B: DETAILED STATEMENT OF SCHOOLS AND STUDENTS TRAVANCORE, 1900-01

Type of Institution	Number of Schools			Number of Students		
	Government	Aided Private	Unaided Private	Government	Aided Private	Unaided Private
Arts Colleges	2	—	3	161	—	83
Law Colleges	1	—	—	194	—	—
English High Schools—Boys	5	5	4	2,090	1,740	1492
English High Schools—Girls	1	2	—	344	536	—
English Middle Schools—Boys	21	7	7	2,917	951	1,061
English Middle Schools—Girls	—	6	—	—	576	—
English Primary Schools						
—Boys	2	9	36	118	719	1,282
English Primary Schools						
—Girls	—	1	—	—	91	—
Vernacular High Schools						
—Boys	1	—	—	437	—	—
Vernacular High Schools						
—Girls	1	—	—	432	—	—
Vernacular Middle Schools						
—Boys	52	8	1	10,611	818	133
Vernacular Middle Schools						
—Girls	34	6	—	4,332	483	—
Vernacular Primary Schools						
—Boys	269	809	2,221	21,579	40,903	81,891
Vernacular Primary Schools						
—Girls	34	84	40	2,304	4,478	1,361
Training Schools	2	3	—	73	65	—
Other Special Schools	4	1	1	242	23	119
Total	429	941	2,313	45,834	51,383	87,422

Source: RAT (1902), Appendix, Statistical Returns, Ch VII, Ta 70, p cix.

64 P R G Nair (1978), Ch III, p 40, and V Nagam Aiya, Vol I, Ch VI, pp 459-60.

65 T K Velu Pillai (1940), Vol II, Ch IV, pp 509-523, and R N Jesudas (1979).

66 Ibid.

67 Ibid.

68 C Achyuta Menon (1911), Ch IX, p 291.

69 Ibid.

70 For the curricula of the missionary schools see Table XII.

71 Around 15,000 of these students must have been studying in the various missionary schools. See RAT (1864-65), p 46, pa 204.

72 RAT (1866-67).

73 No 134, KSA.

74 No 132, KSA.

75 No 131, KSA.

76 No 46, KSA.

77 No 49, KSA.

78 No 133, KSA.

79 Old Records (1935), p 413, Huzur Order No 167, dt 20th Kanni, ME 1012: "Aquisition of land for the English school at Chirayinkil".

80 No 48, KSA, and also E M Philip (1908), Appendix VII, p 448.

81 RAT (1864-65), "Education", p 46, pa 204.

82 The British Indian Presidencies also show very meagre educational efforts, as Table D shows.

83 J P Naik and S Nurullah (1974), Ch II and Atmanand Misra (1973), Ch II, p 9.

84 In all the Presidencies there were efforts made to integrate traditional schools into an effective system of modern education. But only in the North Western Provinces under Lt Governor Thomason, in 1840s, did this scheme met with any viable success. His *halkabandi* or Circle Schools, effectively incorporated indigenous education into a well organised, modern education system. For details see J P Naik and S Nurullah (1974), Ch III.

85 J P Naik and S Nurullah, Ch III, pp 66, 74 and John Sargent (1968).

86 RAT (1864-65), p 46, pa 204.

87 J Ferroli (1939), Vol I, Ch XV, p 408.

88 E M Philip (1908), Ch XI.

89 As quoted in J Ferroli (1951), Vol II, Ch VIII, fn 5, p 232.

90 J Ferroli (1939), Ch XV, p 408 and (1951), Ch IV, App I, p 114.

91 H Hosten (1928), pp 45-47.

92 R A Jacob, "History of the London Missionary Society" (typescript, 1957) in LMS 97: ICHA. This school is described as an English school though we do not know whether the medium of instruction was English. See M M Kuzhuveli (1965), p iii. Also see J Waskom Pickett, (1933) Ch XII, pp 285-293.

93 V Nagam Aiya, (1906), Vol II, Ch VIII, p 116, (quoting J D Rus in "The Nineteenth Century and After").

94 Report of the Rev the Secretary of the Missionary Corresponding Committee of CMS on Cottayam Mission, February 1835, Part I, in CMS 38: ICHA.

95 For details of the early activities of the CMS, see Eira Dalton (1963)

96 See "Church History" (1905).

97 Robert L Hardgrave Jr (1968), No 2, p 172.

98 Eira Dalton (1963), Chs IV and XI,

TABLE C: TALUK-WISE DISTRIBUTION OF SCHOOLS AND STUDENTS TRAVANCORE, 1901

Taluk	Number of Schools	Number of Students
Tiruvalla	236	10,528
Neyyattinkara	198	9,264
Quilon	187	12,362
Eraniel	176	9,420
Ambalapuzha	169	7,810
Trivandrum	165	13,198
Kottayam	157	8,941
Chengannur	157	6,935
Karunagappalli	144	8,650
Kunnathunad	136	4,807
Agasteeswaram	132	6,893
Sherthallai	131	5,768
Meenachil	125	5,420
Mavelikara	122	7,161
Muvattupuzha	117	4,495
Parur	114	6,362
Changanacherry	112	5,589
Vaikom	110	4,880
Kottarakara	105	4,501
Kalkulam	103	5,514
Kartigapally	100	5,540
Ethumannur	96	4,043
Vilavankode	93	4,454
Chirayankeezhu	90	4,285
Kunnathur	88	4,321
Alangad	82	3,474
Tovala	63	2,501
Nedumangad	53	2,324
Pathanapuram	44	1,915
Thodupuzha	41	1,478
Shencottah	37	1,806
Total	3683	1,84,639

Source: RAT (1902), Ch VII, Ta 81, p cxxv.
R N Jesudas (1975), and E M Philip (1908), Ch XX, p 226.
99 Ringletaube in a letter to Munro in 1813 described the six schools he ran for the "laity" as follows: "The instructions that are given consists in lessons of reading, writing, Arithmetic as also to Christian children, the catecheism and reading in the New Testament or other religious books ... For Schoolmasters I choose such out of the congregation that can read

and pray fluently which is an incitement to others." "Church History" (1905), Ch IX, pp 173-74.
100 J A Jacob in LMS 97: ICHA, Ch X, p 68.
101 CMS 1835: ICHA, Part I, App XX, pp 114-115.
102 'Nagercoil, 1916-1921' in LMS 95: ICHA. Colonel Munro is reported to have said that "the plan of the college [CMS] was intended to comprehend a system of instruction in Malayalam to the priests and the laity". See E M Philip (1908), Ch XXIII, p 315.
103 Report of the Mavelikara Mission District for Half Year ending June 30, 1857 (Private and Confidential), in CMS 39: ICHA.
104 'Nagercoil, 1916-1921', in LMS 95: ICHA.
105 J A Jacob, in LMS 97: ICHA, Ch X, p 68.
106 CMS 39: ICHA, Item X, pp 198-99.
107 J A Jacob, in CMS 97: ICHA, Ch XVII, p 98, and "The Scott Christian College, Nagercoil, Travancore" in LMS 95: ICHA.
108 W S Hunt (1930), Series 5, p 276.
109 Eira Dalton (1963).
110 Rev F Bayles: 'Report on the Travancore Tamil Mission', presented at the SIMC, Ootacamund, April 1858, in LMS 97: ICHA.
111 V Nagam Aiya (1906), Vol II, Ch VIII, p 117.
112 Eira Dalton (1963).
113 R J Jesudas (1975).
114 Eira Dalton (1963), and R J Jesudas (1975).
115 Ibid.
116 According to one source, girls' schools were started to train school mistresses, and also to gain suitable wives for catecheists. 'Nagercoil Dist, Report of the Year 1906' in LMS 95: ICHA (quoting Samuel Mateer: "The Land of Charity", p 272).
117 Ibid.
118 J A Jacob: LMS 97, ICHA, Ch X, p 69.
119 C M Agur (1903), pp 21, 41-50, and T K Velu Pillai (1940), Vol II, p 523.
120 "Church History" (1905), Ch IX, pp 173-74.
121 CMS 35: ICHA, App XII, p 119, for details of later controversies on the origins of the fund see Z M Parett (1966), and also E M Philip (1908), App X, pp 454-455, App XI, pp 457-469.

122 Old Records (1935), p 285.
123 CMS 1835: ICHA, App XXI, pp 116-117, and App XXVII, p 163 and CMS 39: ICHA, E M Philip: (1908), Ch XX, p 226.
124 "The Scott Christian College, 1906"; in LMS 95: ICHA.
125 CMS 39: ICHA.
126 RAT: (1864-65), p 46, pa 204.
127 Letter from G O Newport to the Dewan, dt September 18, 1865, in CSF No: 135: GAD (E), and D O No: G/3941/2 (Confidential), from Mitchell to the Dewan, dt May 30, 1900, in CSF No: 7089: GAD (E).
128 Ibid
129 In 1867, there was only one school run by missionaries in Trivandrum town area, started in 1822. Even this school is more likely to have been in the suburbs as we find that the request for permission to start a mission station and a school in Trivandrum town, was turned down by the government in 1828. Therefore the private schools mentioned here are quite likely to be indigenous private schools. See R A Jacob in LMS 97: ICHA.
130 Report of the Vernacular Education Department, ME 1043 in Comm No: 9, fr Director of Vernacular Ed Dep to the Dewan, dt March 10, 1862, in CSF No 290: GAD (E).
131 Address of the Dewan of Travancore to the Sri Mulam Popular Assembly Fifth Session, in Almanac (1908), p 28.
132 The description of these schools given in the Census, that these institutions are all the result of private enterprise, mostly self-supporting, and have been so from very remote times (and) the teachers depend almost entirely upon the pupils for their maintenance which is given in kind, indicates that, at least organisationally there hardly was any change in such schools even by the last decade of 19th century. See V Nagam Aiya (1906), Vol II, Ch XI, p 453.
133 The assumption here is that the indigenous schools talked about by Proverthy Schools Committee were those which already have come within the purview of the formal school system; while the Census had in mind those schools still outside the system. The fact that the Proverthy Committee Report mentions "fees due" in indigenous schools—of which 33 per cent was realised by them on an average, while Proverthy Schools realised 53 per cent of fees and the grant-in-aid schools only 3 per cent—corroborates this assumption. Since, the Proverthy Report does not give the definitions used, there is no basis for saying anything conclusive about this.
134 By the second half of the century, products of missionary schools were being attracted to relatively highly paid jobs in the coffee estates of Travancore and Ceylon. Therefore the missionaries introduced a bond requiring boarding students to stay behind for a few years for mission service. As a result of the increasing job prospects, requests for starting new schools were made to the missionaries by people of different localities. By end of the century institutions like the Nagercoil Seminary could

TABLE D: GENERAL STATISTICS OF EDUCATION IN BRITISH INDIA. 1852

Nature of Instruction	Number of Institutions	Teachers	Pupils
(1) Bengal LP			
(a) English and Mixed	36	283	5,465
(b) Vernacular	104	104	4,685
(2) NWP			
(a) English and Mixed	7	112	1,582
(b) Vernacular	8	48	—
(3) Madras			
(a) English and Mixed	1	13	180
(b) Vernacular	—	—	Cannot be given
(4) Bombay			
(a) English and Mixed	14	62	2,066
(b) Vernacular	233	233	11,394
Total	404	855	25,372

Source: S N Mukerjee (1951), pa 386, ta I.

- substantially increase their fees "on account of the remarkable desire and persistent demand for English education." Contemporary missionary observers felt that such demand at least partly was "due to English occupation and the desire for government service". Report of the Secretary in CMS 1835, ICHA, Appendix XXI, pp 116-17, and Appendix XXVII, p 165, in CMS 39, ICHA, and the Scott Christian College (1906) in LMS 95, ICHA.
- 135 Proverthy Schools Committee, Provisional Report, Proceedings of H H the Maharaja's Government No: 447, dt January 27, 1892, in CSF No: 13399. GAD (E).
- 136 Rev Mathias: 'Review of the History of the College', December 20, 1919, in LMS 95, ICHA.
- 137 RAT (1864-65), p 15, pa 199.
- 138 In CSF No: 290, GAD (E).
- 139 See Table 9.
- 140 V Nagam Aiya (1906), Vol I, Ch VI, p 549.
- 141 Though the number of schools and students do not tally strictly with our own estimates, this table is reproduced here as it gives an idea of the increase in number of schools as well as students.
- 142 Lt No 1018 fr the Dewan to Kerala Varma Sr dt March 21, 1867; Lt No 389, fr Kerala Varma to the Dewan dt June 8, 1883. Lt fr Kerala Varma to the Dewan, dt August 12, 1872, in CSF No: 290: GAD (E).
- 143 Ibid.
- 144 Krishna Chaitanya (1971), Ch VII, p 173.
- 145 Lt No 1897, Trivandrum, fr Principal in charge, Govt Book Depot, to the Dewan, dt March 11, 1897 in CSF No: 7000; GAD (E).
- 146 Ibid.
- 147 P Govinda Pillai (1973).
- 148 The impact of the outburst of newspapers, literary journals and other periodicals in late 19th century Travancore is comprehensively discussed in Krishna Chaitanya (1971), Ch VII, pp 173-176. To quote a particular example, we have the instance of *Bhasha Poshini*, a well known literary journal published from Kottayam, which claimed that concessional subscription rates were being offered for teachers and articles of interest to teachers are being included in its issues. Lt fr K J Varghese Mapillay, Sec, Bhasha Poshini Sabha, to the Dewan, dt August 30, 1898, Kottayam in CSF No 3271: GAD (E).
- 149 'Rep of the Vernacular Ed Dept ME 1043' in CSF No 290: GAD (E).
- 150 CSF No 13410 GAD (E), and CSF No 13399: GAD (E).
- 151 'Rep of the Ver Ed Dept ME 1043, and ME 1044' in CSF No 290: GAD (E).
- 152 University Committee: (1924), Ch II, p 15.
- 153 Ibid, pp 18-19.
- 154 Lt fr G O Newport to the Dewan, dt September 18, 1865, in CSF No 135: GAD (E). I am indebted to V C V Retnam of Scott Christian College, Nagercoil for this reference as well as for the following.
- 155 Lt fr John Lowe to the Dewan, dt September 22, 1865, in CSF No 135: GAD (E).
- 156 The well known Palpu and his brother Velaudhan acquired English education because their father brought an Anglo-Indian missionary from Angengo over to Pettah in Trivandrum, and he started a *kudipallikudam* for these boys as well as others. Later on this school got recognised as Pettah English School. It may be mentioned that in later part of the century the brothers Palpu and Velaudhan got admission in the Maharaja's High School. See M Govindan (1952).
- 157 P N Chopra, *et al* (1979), Vol III, Ch XV, p 216.
- 158 Ibid.
- 159 Lt fr L E Lafryenais, Supdt of Dist Schools, to the Dewan, dt October 25, 1871, in CSF No 135: GAD (E).
- 160 Comm fr P Palpu, Asst Surgeon, Mysore Govt Service, Bangalore, to Shungra Soobyer, the Dewan, dt May 13, 1895, in CSF No 3234: GAD (E).
- 161 See Table 4.
- 162 V Nagam Aiya (1906), Vol II, Ch VIII, p 117.
- 163 "Rep of the Ver Ed Dept ME 1044" in CSF No 290: GAD (E).
- 164 Effect of this could be seen in the fact that the number of aided schools in the state increased from 437 to 1375 and the number of students in these schools from 21,574 to 57,314 between 1881 and 1893. See V Nagam Aiya (1906), Vol II, Ch XI, p 437.
- 165 'Report of the Ver Ed Dept 1044' in CSF No 290: GAD (E).
- 166 CSF No 949: GAD (E).
- 167 'Nagercoil Dist Rep 1906' in LMS 95: ICHA, South Indian Missionary Conference, Ootacamund, April 1858, Rep of the Travancore Tamil Mission by Rev F Bayles of Neyyoor in LMS 97: ICHA.
- 168 C P Mathew and M M Thomas (1967), Chs V, VI and IX; Robin Jeffry (1976), Ch IV, pp 118, 122.
- 169 Lt fr K I Varghese Mapillay to the Dewan, dt November 21, 1898, Trivandrum, in CSF No 3322: GAD (E). Though better than the early record of Catholics the non-Catholic Syrians' record in starting schools, was not very commendable, till around 1875. They started some vernacular schools during the period of litigation with the new Syrain church, which seems to have been the beginning of their concerted activities in the field of education. They are supposed to have started three 'English' high schools, three 'English' middle schools, several 'English' primary schools and 'no fewer than 250 vernacular schools'. See E M Phillip, (1908), Ch XXIV, p 356.
- 170 J Ferrol (1951), Ch VI, p 157.
- 171 'Rep of the Sec CMS, 1835' in CMS 38-40: ICHA, App XX, pp 114-15. It may be mentioned that Catholics were considered to be most backward in educational progress, among Christian denominations, till the end of the 19th century. See E M Phillip (1908), Ch XXIV, p 404.
- 172 P R G Nair (1978). In the Report on the Census of 1881, Nagam Aiya mentions that the bulk of the Christian schools are run by Catholics. Ch IV, p 157.
- 173 N K Jose (1979), Ch VI, p 73.
- 174 Ibid. See also Abraham Nidhiry (1971), Ch XXVII, pp 312-13.
- 175 M O Joseph Nedumkunnam (1971), p 9.
- 176 N K Jose (1979), Ch VI, pp 69-71, and Abraham Nidhiry (1971).
- 177 Ibid.
- 178 Lt fr Dewan Peishkar to the Dewan, dt August 15, 1900, Kottayam, (Strictly confidential), in CSF No 7189, GAD (E).
- 179 See C P Mathew and M M Thomas (1967), Ch V, p 70 and 'Statement of the Cottayam Conference 1857' in CMS 39: ICHA.
- 180 V Nagam Aiya (1906), Vol II, Ch XI, p 445.
- 181 See Table IV. With reference to religion, the Christians had a higher percentage of literacy, 15.7 per cent than Hindus and Muhammedans who had only 11.7 per cent and 8.6 per cent respectively. Moreover the Taluks of Kottayam (36.8 per cent), Tiruvalla (35.6 per cent), and Minachil (34.5 per cent) which topped in male literacy and Parur, Kottayam and Changanacherry, which topped in female literacy, were all regions having considerable Christian population. See V Nagam Aiya (1906), Vol II, Ch VII, p 35.
- 182 In CSF No 13399: GAD (E).

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